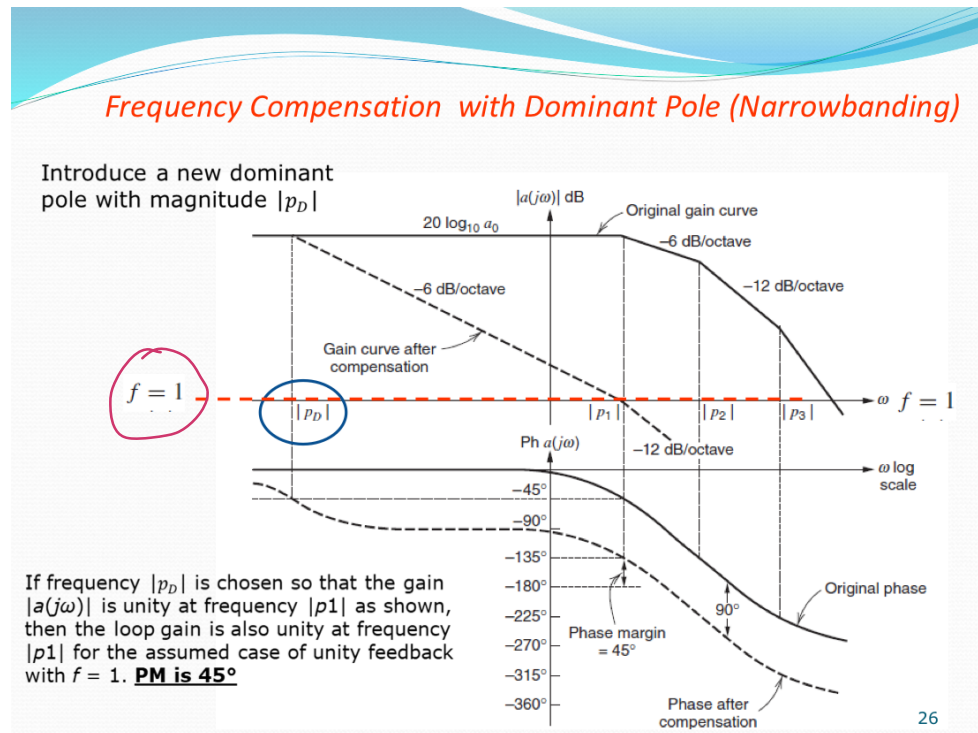


Lecture-27

Rexanth Reddy Pannala
EBIT, Chibo

→ This is The continuation of Frequency compensation by adding Dominant pole.

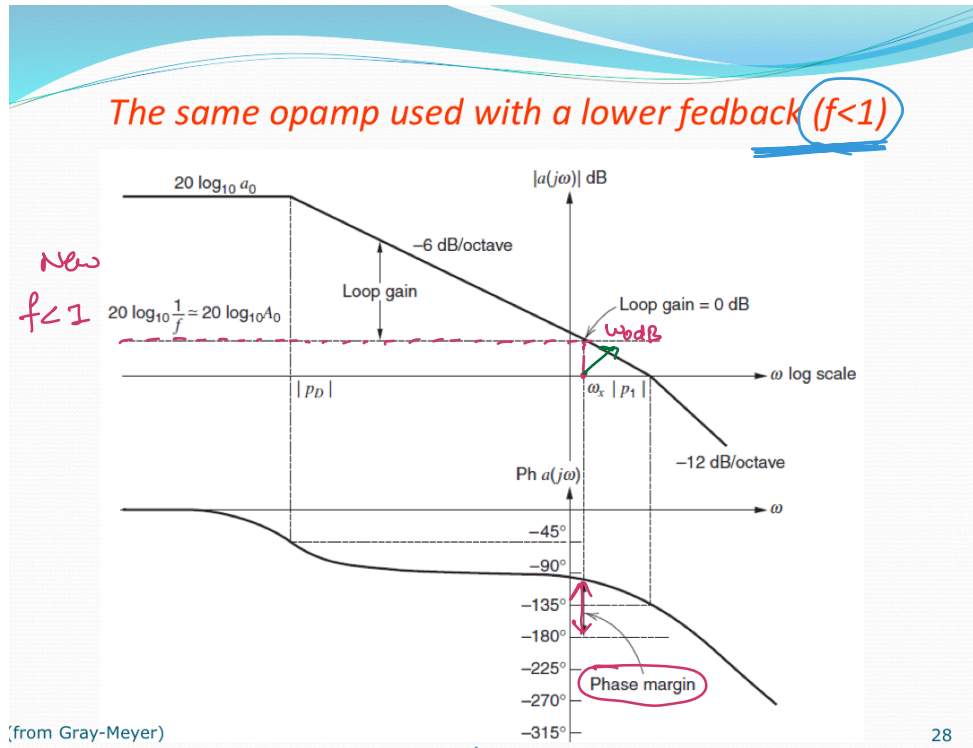


→ The dominant pole change original Gain Curve into a dashed line.

and a new phase margin = 45°

and the system is stable

→ we have multiple methods to achieve this goal. Another important strategy is detailed below.



Rather than adding ^{an extra} Dominant pole, we can play with the feedback f by using

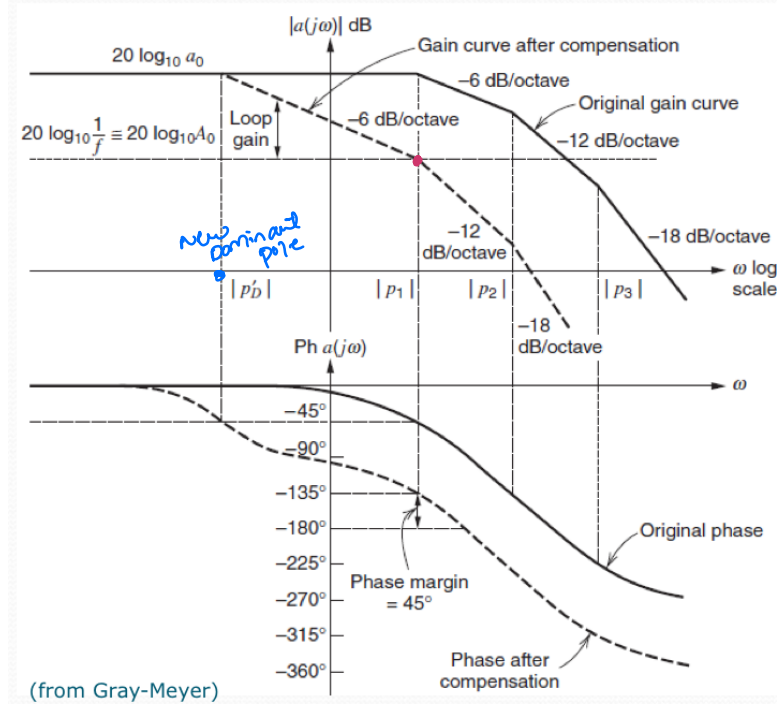
$f < 1$ rather than $f = 1$ in the previous case.

Note:- $f = 1$ is the worst possible value for

' f ' in case of stability.

Because $f = 1$ puts ω_{0dB} at higher angular frequencies.

The same opamp used with a lower feedback ($f < 1$)



Optimum bandwidth is achieved in such circuits if the compensation is tailored to the gain value required

A dominant pole is added with magnitude $|pD'|$ to give a phase margin of 45° .
 $|pD'|$ is $\ll |pD|$.

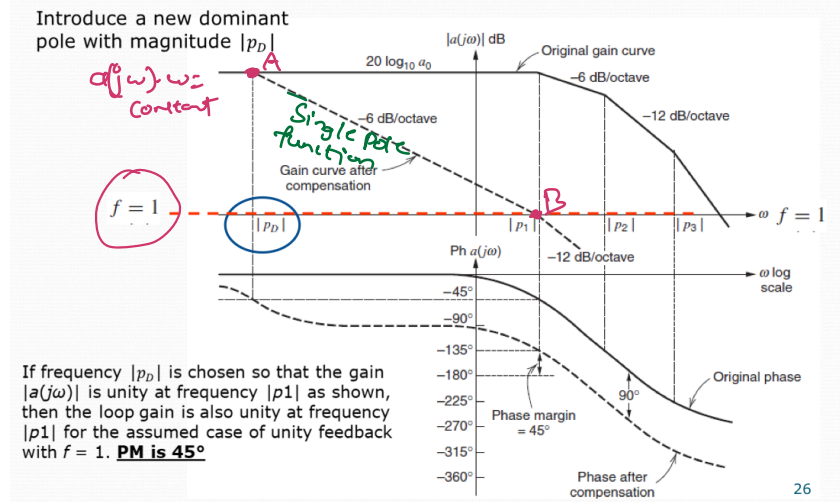
→ In this case even though $f < 1$ and the 0dB gain of $A(j\omega)$ i.e. the dashed line $= 20 \log_{10} \frac{1}{f} = 20 \log_{10} A_0$ is moved upwards if we still want

$$PM = 45^\circ ?$$

By adding a dominant pole as shown in the figure.



Frequency Compensation with Dominant Pole (Narrowbanding)



$$\alpha = 20 \log_{10} |a(j\omega)| - 20 \log_{10} \left(\frac{1}{f} \right) = \text{loop gain in dB}$$

$$\alpha \rightarrow 20 \log_{10} |a(j\omega \cdot f)|$$

$$\alpha = 20 \log_{10} |T(j\omega)|$$

→ when we introduce a new dominant pole P_D
 we take a position that upto P_1 , the gain times
the frequency is constant.

i.e. $a(j\omega) \cdot \omega = \text{constant}$
 Gain · frequency

This is the case for single pole function.

$$\text{The gain at } A = a_0 \cdot P_D$$

$$\text{The Gain at } \beta = a(j\omega_{p_1}) \cdot P_1$$

$$a(j\omega_{odB}) \cdot P_1$$

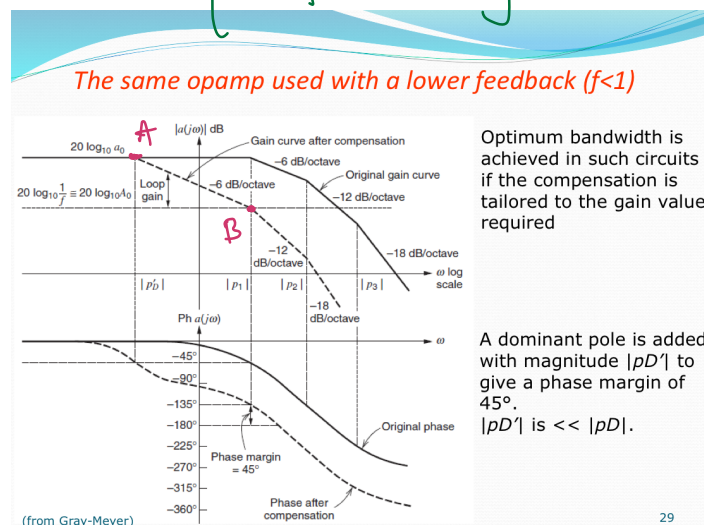
$$\frac{1}{f} = P_1 \quad (\because f=2)$$

$$\Rightarrow 1 \cdot P_1$$

$$\Rightarrow a_o P_D = P_1$$

$$\Rightarrow P_D = \frac{P}{a_o}$$

****** Similarly following this philosophy



$$\underbrace{\text{Gain at A}}_{\text{Gain}} \cdot \underbrace{|P'_D|}_{\text{frequency}} = \text{Gain at B} \cdot P_1$$

Gain Bandwidth product

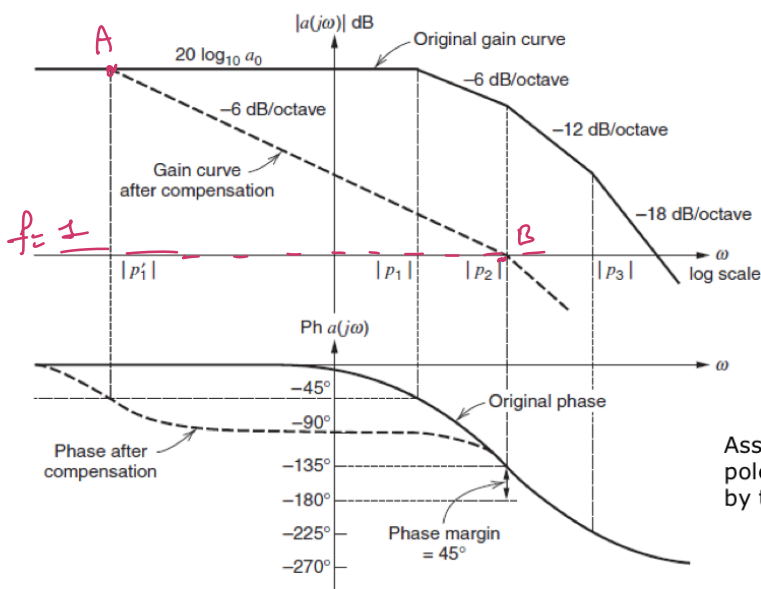
$\Rightarrow$

$$a_0 P'_D = \frac{1}{f} P_1$$

$$\Rightarrow P'_D = \frac{1}{f} \frac{P_1}{a_0}$$

Frequency Compensation by reducing P_1

(this technique requires access to the internal nodes of the amplifier)



Assume that higher frequency poles p_2 and p_3 are unaffected by this procedure

(from Gray-Meyer)

→ Rather than adding extra pole we move the 1st pole to lower frequencies.

i.e. $|P_1'| < |P_2|$ are now at a distance greater than before. We have now enlarged

Global Bandwidth of the circuit.

Q What should be the position of P_1' for phase margin 45° ?

$$a_0 P_1' = \frac{1}{f} P_2$$

$$\because f = 1$$

$$\Rightarrow \boxed{P_1' = \frac{P_2}{a_0}}$$

Reducing P_1 is a very good solution because we are not adding an extra pole.

ಒಸೋಫೆಫೆ ಒಫೆ ಒಫೆಫೆ
EBIT, unibO

→ Now let's discuss it's practically achieve
"pole Compensation"

There are multiple ways.

→ If we know that a specific pole is associated with a given Node. You can add an extra capacitor to that Node.

But adding extra capacitor is not very efficient because usually this pole relocation occurs at very low frequency. To achieve this we must add large capacitance which is quite impractical.

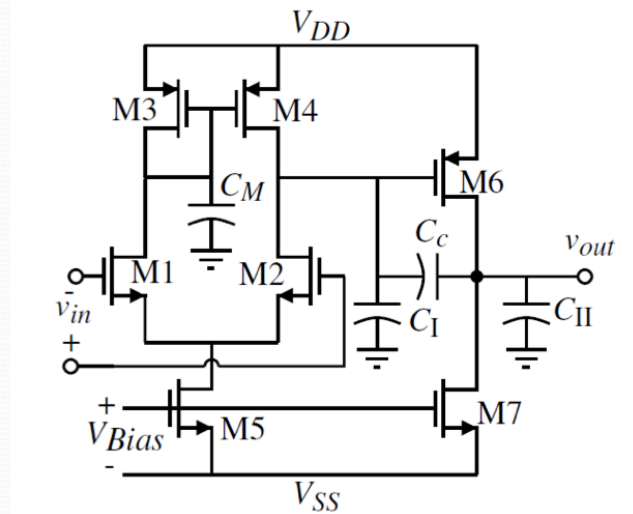
→ One very effective solution is

"Miller Compensation"

If you remember that Miller theorem states that if you have a capacitance parallel to a circuit which realizes some kind of Gain the effect is to project capacitance at i/p Node with multiplication factor somehow equal to the Gain.

Miller Compensation – Two stage Opamp

(P. Allen)



C_c = accomplishes the Miller compensation

C_M = capacitance associated with the first-stage mirror (mirror pole, can be neglected)

C_I = output capacitance to ground of the first-stage

C_{II} = output capacitance to ground of the second-stage

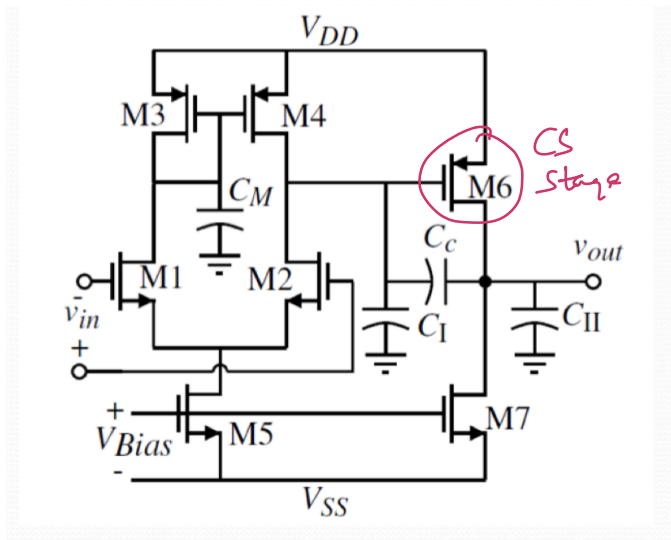
31

→ ∴ Rather than placing large capacitance to a given node to the GND, you put this capacitance parallel to gain stage. We can get large capacitances relatively less capacitive components.

→ We will study Miller Compensation on a 2-stage Differential Amplifier.

→ 2 Stage op-Amp is an Amplifier in which in the 1st stage we have a Differential

Amplifier & in the 2nd stage we have a Common source amplifier.



→ Here M_1, M_2
 M_3, M_4, M_5
 for Diff-Amp with
 current mirror loading
 & M_6 realizes
 CS stage Topology

$$R_{out} = \frac{1}{g_{o6} + g_{o7}}$$

→ Frequency response of 2-stage OP-Amp
 all the parasitic capacitances are collapsed
 into C_M, C_c, C_1, C_{II}

$$C_1 = C_p + C_L$$

$\downarrow$ parasitic at load $\rightarrow$ load capacitance

& is the pole associated with the o/p

Node is the dominant pole. we can attach an addition capacitance in parallel with C_c

i.e $C_c = C_d + \underbrace{[C]}_{\substack{\text{extra capacitor} \\ \text{Miller capacitor}}}$

→ If zoom the 2nd stage and assume 1st stage as a source with simple Parasitic Resistance Then we have-

Pole Splitting

Output of the first (differential) stage

Compensation Capacitance

Output of the 2nd (CS) stage

$$-i_s = \frac{v_1}{R_1} + v_1 C_1 s + (v_1 - v_o) C s$$

$$g_m v_1 + \frac{v_o}{R_2} + v_o C_2 s + (v_o - v_1) C s = 0$$

$$\frac{v_o}{i_s} = \frac{(g_m - C s) R_2 R_1}{1 + s[(C_2 + C) R_2 + (C_1 + C) R_1 + g_m R_2 R_1 C] + s^2 R_2 R_1 (C_2 C_1 + C C_2 + C C_1)}$$

$z = \frac{g_m}{C}$ zero is +ve

(Gray-Meyer)

32

This is similar to frequency response of common source stage.

Device CS Frequency response

$$D(s) = \left(1 - \frac{s}{p_1}\right) \left(1 - \frac{s}{p_2}\right)$$

$$= 1 - s \left(\frac{1}{p_1} + \frac{1}{p_2}\right) + \frac{s^2}{p_1 p_2}$$

$$p_1 = -\frac{1}{(C_2 + C)R_2 + (C_1 + C)R_1 + g_m R_2 R_1 C} \approx -\frac{1}{g_m R_2 R_1 C}$$

gain of 2nd stage

$$p_2 \approx -\frac{g_m C}{C_2 C_1 + C(C_2 + C_1)}$$

$|p_1|$ decreases as C increases

$|p_2|$ increases as C increases

Pole splitting

as $C \rightarrow \infty$ $p_2 \rightarrow -g_m / (C_2 + C_1)$

(Gray-Meyer) 33



Development of the second pole

only two poles

With C shorted, C_1 and C_2 are connected in parallel $1/g_m$ is in parallel with R_2 .

Assuming $1/g_m \ll R_2$, the short-circuit time constant

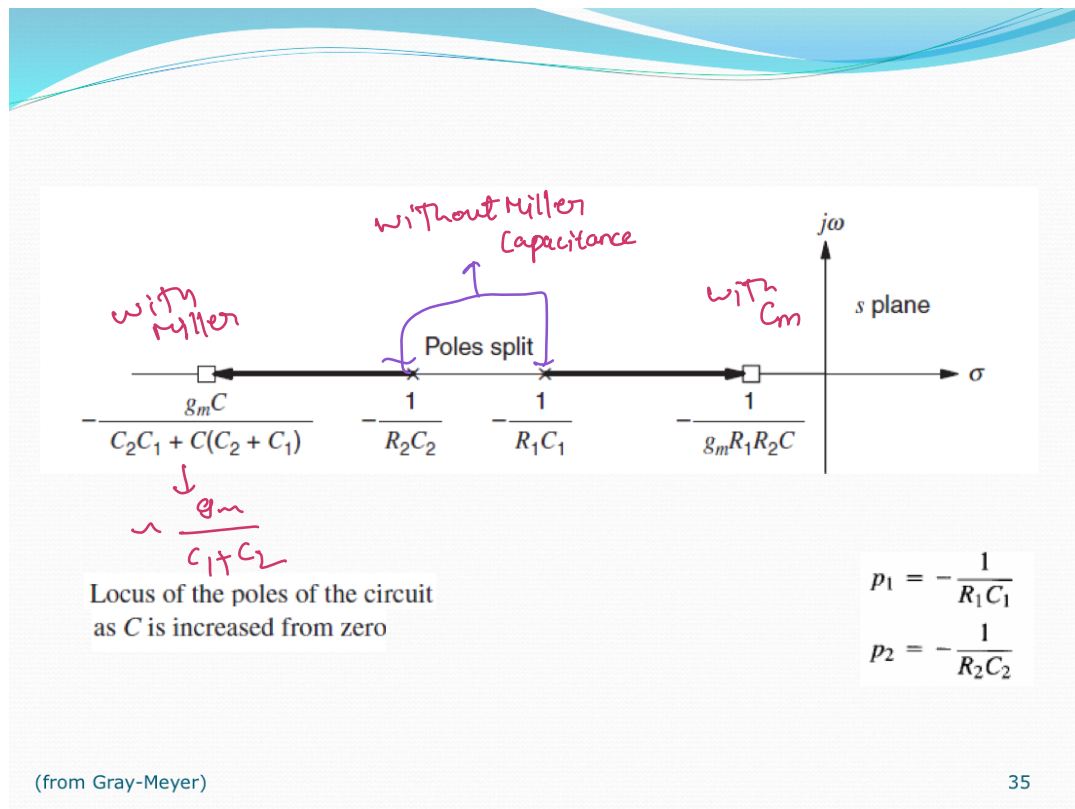
$$\tau = (1/g_m)(C_1 + C_2) \quad |p_2| \approx 1/\tau = g_m / (C_1 + C_2)$$

for $C = 0$

$$p_1 = -\frac{1}{R_1 C_1}$$

$$p_2 = -\frac{1}{R_2 C_2}$$

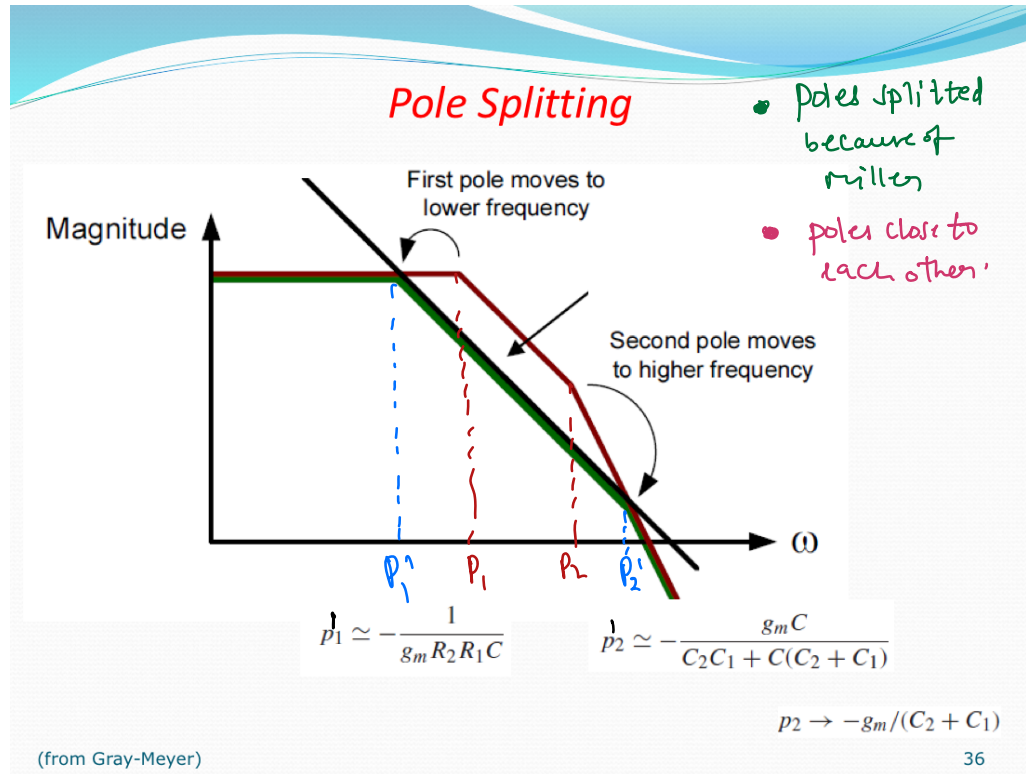
(Gray-Meyer) 34



→ when ever we are analyzing stability if we have poles which are nearer to each other it is an issue.

Because Poles reduce gain by -6dB/oct they also cause phase loss of -90° which is unwarranted.

If we have poles well separated the phase loss occurs quite far.



Pole splitting at first sight, usage of Miller Effect seems to be beneficial. But there is big risk associated with the strategy because of the trc zero we have seen in the above case.

$$z = \frac{g_m}{C}$$

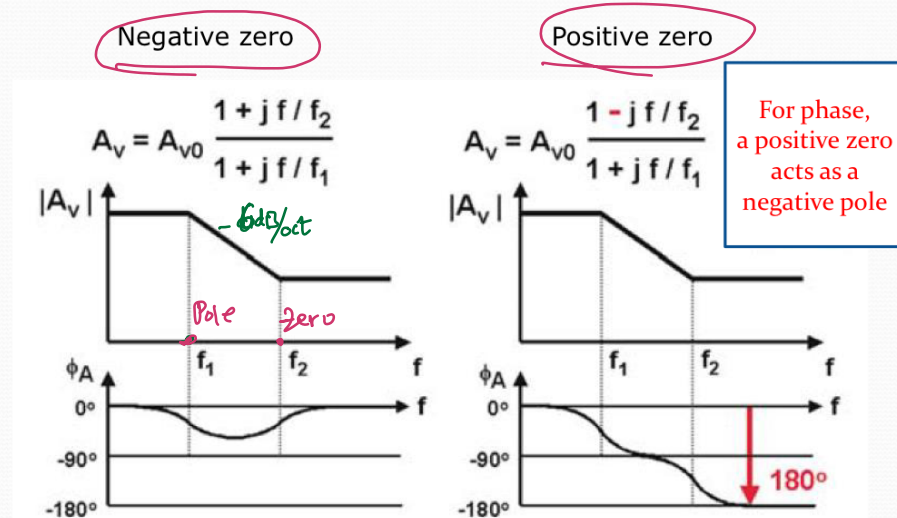
thus

we have not considered the effect of zero in phase margin estimation.

→ let's discuss the effects of "trc zero"

on the other hand "-ve zero" is not an issue.

Effect of positive zero

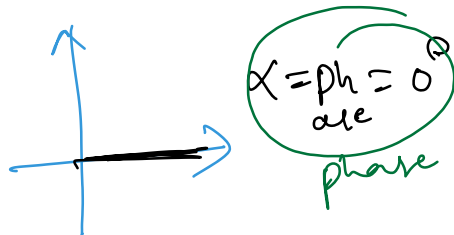


(W. Sansen)

37

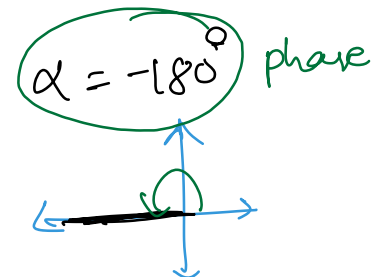
At High frequencies

$$A_v = A_{v0} \left(\frac{f_1}{f_2} \right)$$



$$A_v = A_{v0} \left(-\frac{f_1}{f_2} \right)$$

Transfer function is -ve

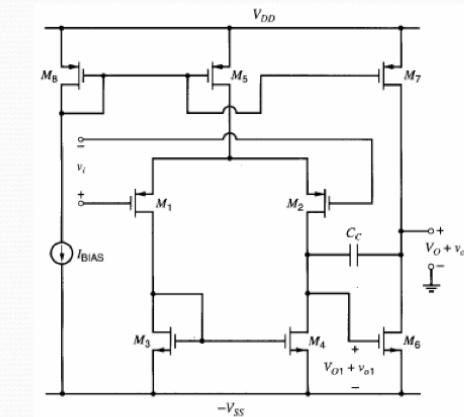


∴ +ve zero is problematic for the phase loss



Reranth Reddy Panda
EBIT, Unibo

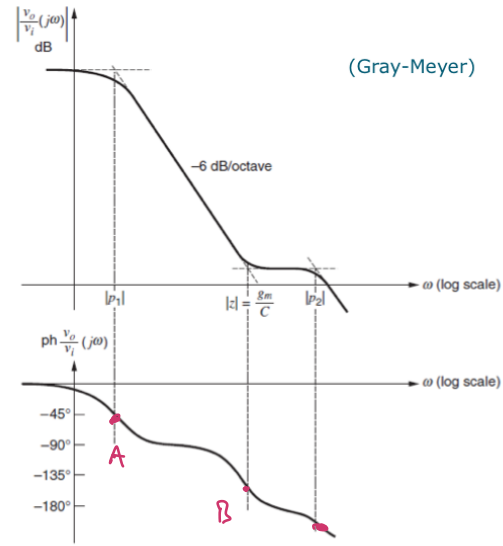
Two-Stage CMOS Opamp Compensation: the zero issue



$$p_1 \simeq -\frac{1}{g_{m_b} R_2 R_1 C_c}$$

$$p_2 \simeq -\frac{g_m C}{C_2 C_1 + C(C_2 + C_1)}$$

$$z = \frac{g_{m_b}}{C}$$



Who is bigger?

38

Here if we look clearly we do not have a phase margin.

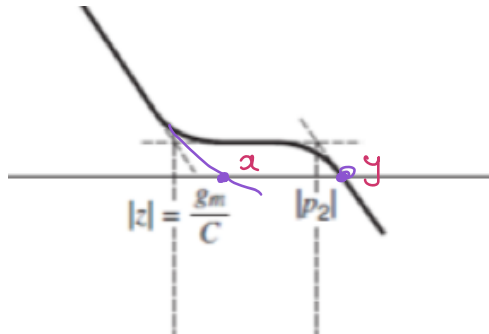
→ point A represents phase loss associated with p_1

point B represents phase loss associated with zero $z = \frac{g_m}{C}$

point C represents phase loss associated with pole p_2

At (C) the circuit is already out of phase.

→ The effect of the zero is that we are moving the value of ω_{0dB} to higher frequencies.



x: ω_{0dB} without zero

y: ω_{0dB} with zero

∴ Because of the zero there is a ^{low} stability issue

→ Situation would be radically different if

p_2 were to be less than zero

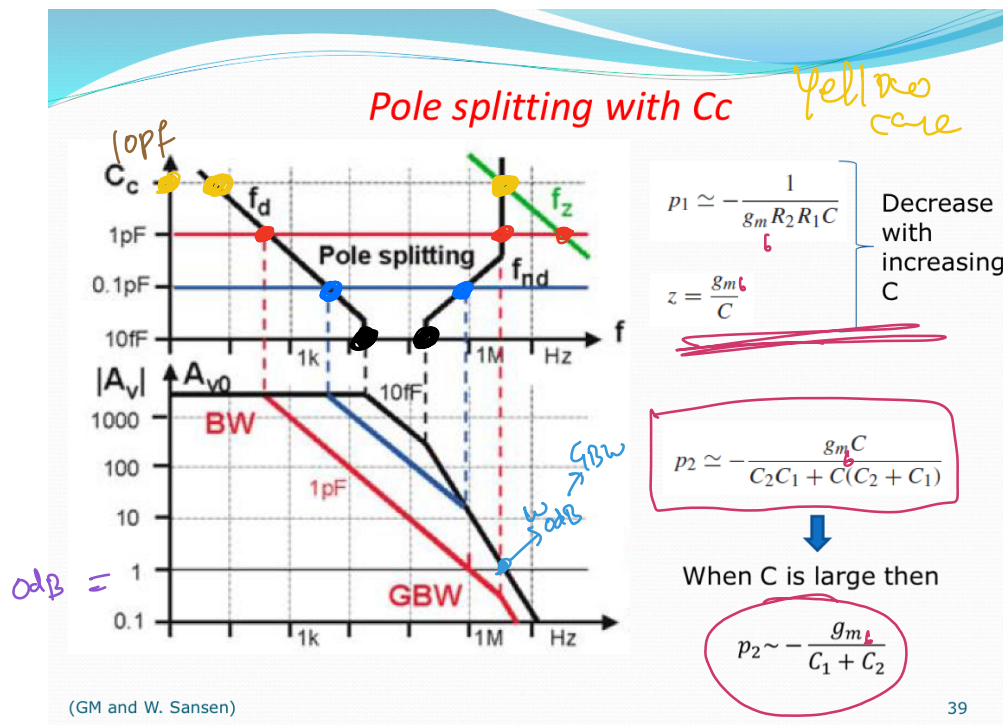
It's hard to say if p_2 is smaller (or) larger than zero. Typically there are closely placed values.

Q How can we enforce p_2 to be smaller than zero?

well Basically we can play with circuit parameters. g_m, C_2, C_1

$$p_2 \simeq -\frac{g_m C}{C_2 C_1 + C(C_2 + C_1)} \quad z = \frac{g_m b}{C}$$

*** A plot that represents Big picture about poles and zero positioning.



f_d : Frequency associated with Dominant pole

f_{nd} : Frequency " " 2nd pole

f_z : " " " Zero

C_c : Miller (or) Compensation capacitance.

In the above graphs we are comparing
the effect of C_c on pole splitting and
its effect on the stability of the circuit.

(1:15:00 - end)

* **Black** for $C_c = 10 \text{ fF}$
The system looks unstable

* **Blue** for $C_c = 0.1 \text{ pF}$

The system looks unstable because
the poles have already crossed the 0° margin
and $\angle PM < 45^\circ$ which is risky.

Zero
at
High
Freq.
because
of
low
 C_c

* **RED** for $C_c = 1 \text{ pF}$

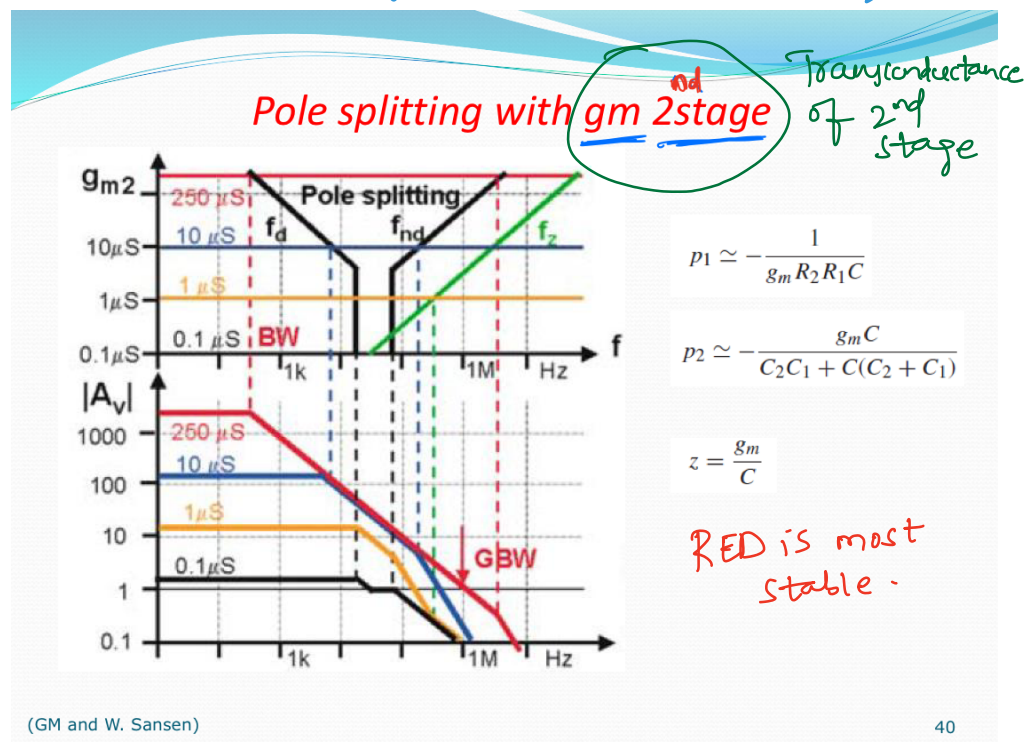
but in this case zeros not negligible
 The 2nd pole is placed after ω_{0AB}

* Yellow for $C_C = 10\text{pF}$

Here the 2nd pole and zero coincide

Q What would happen if zero is at a lower position than 2nd pole?

* Additional way to control poles and zeros



By

Rexanth Reddy Pannala

EBIT, Unibo